

HUGH LLOYD-JONES

THE
JUSTICE
OF
ZEUS

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Preface

THIS BOOK contains, very much as they were delivered, the text of the six lectures I gave as Jane K. Sather Professor of Classical Literature at the University of California, Berkeley, during the fall term of 1969, together with a short final chapter. A set of lectures is not the same thing as a monograph, and I make no attempt to offer a systematic treatment of the large subject indicated by the title. The most fully documented history of the concept which the Greeks called *Dike* is that of Rudolf Hirzel, supplemented to some degree by Victor Ehrenberg; the best account of *Dike* as a political concept is that of J. L. Myers; and for the origin, cult and attributes of Zeus one should consult the learned work of A. B. Cook.

I chose to speak about *Dike* because it seems to me a central concept of the early Greek religious outlook, and therefore one well suited to allow me to express certain views about that outlook in general. It can mean "justice," or at least can indicate some kinds of justice, but it can also mean the divinely appointed order of the universe. It follows that "the justice of Zeus" is not quite the same as "the early Greek view of justice." I have tried to sketch the nature of this concept, starting with the Homeric epics and going as far as the end of the fifth century. For this purpose the literary evidence is the most valuable, and almost all this book is concerned with it.

One of the many pleasures of giving the Sather Lectures is

that of addressing an audience which includes not only classical scholars of different kinds and ages but scholars trained in other disciplines and other interested persons. I therefore chose a topic about which I felt eager to address the general reader, as well as my academic colleagues, and I have done my best to present the lectures in a way which he will understand. I make no pretence of offering a full bibliography, and the notes are meant simply to elucidate the text; at least half of them consist of references to ancient authors.

The book is written from a point of view markedly different from that of most writers of the intellectual history of the period in question with what some may find the surprising exception of the late Walter F. Otto. It abounds with expression of disagreement, and I am uncomfortably conscious that many of these relate to scholars to whom I am in various ways obliged; disagreement, as all scholars know, is by no means always a token of disesteem. I cannot pretend to a warm admiration for the writings of the late Werner Jaeger; but towards many of the scholars from whom I have dissented I feel very differently. For example, my rejection of the views about "the discovery of the mind" associated with the names of Hermann Fränkel and Bruno Snell must not be taken as indicating disrespect for those distinguished scholars; and the same applies to my reservations about the view of early Greek ethics expressed in A. W. H. Adkins' interesting book, *Merit and Responsibility*.

The modern scholar most often quoted in these pages is F. R. Dodds, and without his Sather Lectures (*The Greeks and the Irrational*, 1951) my own could hardly have been written. Since, at the age of sixteen, I was taken to hear him lecture on the *Bacchae*, I have found his work a constant stimulus and inspiration; and I hope no reader will find my frequent disagreements, particularly with the first two chapters of his Sather Lectures, a sign of disrespect.

I have much for which to thank my hosts at Berkeley; they not only caused me by their gracious invitation to write down

did everything possible to make my stay with them agreeable. In particular, I wish to express my gratitude to Professor W. Kendrick Pritchett and Mrs. Pritchett, whose hospitality to me was fabulous. I would also like to thank Professor and Mrs. J. K. Anderson, Professor and Mrs. T. G. Rosenmeyer and many others, both students and professors, inside and outside the classical department; and I would like to record my gratitude for the delightful company of Mr. and Mrs. Stephen Goldstine.

Sir Maurice Bowra has read through my draft, parts of it more than once, and has given me much encouragement. The whole book has been read through and discussed in detail by Professor George Devereux, and has greatly profited from his unique combination of classical scholarship and expert knowledge of psychology and anthropology.

HUGH LLOYD-JONES

Christ Church, Oxford
17 March, 1970

P.S. I am deeply grateful to those friends who helped me with the proofs. Professor G. S. Kirk and Mr. D. M. Iewis both did much to improve the book. Later Professor Dodds with characteristic generosity read the draft and supplied most valuable comments. "I stressed the element of change in Greek beliefs," he writes, "you stress the element of continuity; we are both of us right, though both of us at times exaggerate the partial truth we are stressing."

H. Ll.-J.

Christ Church, Oxford
18 January, 1971

Principal Abbreviations Used

Adkins, <i>MR</i>	A. W. H. Adkins, <i>Merit and Responsibility: A Study in Greek Values</i> (Oxford, 1962).
Dodds, <i>GI</i>	E. R. Dodds, <i>The Greeks and the Irrational</i> . Vol. 25, Sather Classical Lectures (Berkeley and Los Angeles, 1951; paperback ed. 1963).
Guthrie, <i>HGP</i>	W. K. C. Guthrie, <i>A History of Greek Philosophy</i> , I-III (Cambridge, 1962-1969).
Latte, <i>RGAG</i>	K. Latte, "Der Rechtsgedanke im archaischen Griechentum" (<i>Antike und Abendland</i> 2, 1946, 63f.= <i>Kleine Schriften</i> , 1968, 233f.)
Lesky, <i>GGM</i>	Albin Lesky, "Göttliche und menschliche Motivierung im homerischen Epos," <i>SB Heidel. Akad., Ph.-Hist. Kl.</i> 1961, 4 Abh.
Lesky, "Homeros"	<i>Idem</i> , in Pauly-Wissowa, <i>Real-Encyclopädie</i> , s.v. "Homeros."
Lesky, <i>TDH</i> ²	<i>Idem</i> , <i>Die tragische Dichtung der Hellenen</i> (2d ed., Frankfurt, 1964).

xiv Abbreviations

- Nilsson, GGR I² M. P. Nilsson, *Geschichte der griechischen Religion* I (Munich, 1941; 2d ed. 1955).
- Otto, GG³ W. F. Otto, *Die Götter Griechenlands* (Frankfurt, 1929; 3d ed. 1947). Translated by Moses Hadas, *The Homeric Gods: The Spiritual Significance of Greek Religion* (New York, 1954).
- Rohde, *Psyche* Erwin Rohde, *Psyche* (London, 1925).
- Schmid, GLG W. Schmid and O. Stählin, *Geschichte der griechischen Literatur* (Munich, 1929-48).
- IS H. Diels, *Die Fragmente der Vorsokratiker* (6th ed. rev. by W. Kranz, Berlin, 1951).
- Von Fritz, AMT K. von Fritz, *Antike und moderne Tragödie* (Munich, 1962).
- Von Fritz, GG *Idem*, *Die griechische Geschichtsschreibung* Bd. I Text and Bd. I Anmerkungen (Berlin, 1967).
- Wilamowitz, *Glaube* U. von Wilamowitz-Moellendorff, *Der Glaube der Hellenen*, I-II (Berlin, 1931-32).

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I

The *Iliad*

SOME OF the most celebrated historians of Greek thought hold that in their origins religion and morality were wholly separate.¹ I am not now concerned with the truth or falsity of their opinion, though I remark in passing that to the latest investigators of the origins of religion the subject seems far more difficult and obscure than it did to their comparatively recent predecessors.² What concerns me is that some of them find that in the *Iliad*, the earliest document of Greek civilisation which we possess, the association between the two has reached only a very elementary stage. Dodds, for example, has written that he finds "no indication in the narrative of the *Iliad* that Zeus is concerned with justice as such."³ Chantraine does not go as far as Dodds in this direction; he believes that Zeus maintains a kind of order in human society, but that with the exception of one isolated passage he never acts in order to enforce a moral law.⁴ Other scholars go further than Dodds; Adkins, for instance, holds that "the gods as portrayed generally in the Homeric poems are far from just."⁵ "Though right triumphs in the main plots of both *Iliad* and *Odyssey*," he writes, "it does not do so because it is right." Adkins does indeed find in the Homeric epics, in particular the *Odyssey*, evidence of the process by which the gods, and Zeus in particular, were made into agents of morality. But he thinks that this process remained incomplete until long after Homer; and even at the peak of its development he does not consider that it fulfilled

adequately the purpose for which it was commenced, that of lending a special sanction to the co-operative as against the competitive virtues, to *dikaiosyne*⁶ as against *arete*. Adkins points out that the main ethical terms of praise in Greek, *arete* and the corresponding adjective *agathos*, denoted originally and long afterwards competitive qualities—valour, skill, and other accomplishments—and that co-operative virtues like *dikaiosyne*, justice or righteousness, in Homer's time and for long afterwards failed altogether to enjoy the same prestige. Attempts were made to remedy this state of affairs by making Zeus an agent of justice and by incorporating *dikaiosyne* into the notion of *arete*; in the striking phrase of Dodds the Greeks passed from "shame-culture" to "guilt-culture."⁷ But these failed, according to Adkins, because the gods manifestly did not punish all offenders against justice and because ordinary usage resisted the attempt to make righteousness into an integral part of virtue. Even as late as the fourth century before Christ, in Adkins' view, the Greeks lacked an adequate concept of moral responsibility.

To begin with I wish to enquire what part, if any, is played by justice or righteousness in the *Iliad*, and if it does play a part there, what kind of justice or righteousness it is. First it will be necessary to examine the view that Zeus is not concerned with justice, or that he is not concerned with the justice that assigns to each what he deserves. But even if we find this to be correct, the investigation will not be at an end; for it might still be that the human actors in the poem subscribed, all or most of them, to certain moral notions; and in order to discover whether this is so or not, we shall have to examine not simply their moral terminology but also their behaviour and the manner in which the poet chooses to present it. One of the most damaging sources of error about early Greek morality has been the assumption that in order to study the moral notions found in a work of art or in a society it is enough to list and analyse the words indicating moral concepts which occur in it. The scrutiny of such words is certainly an important part of such

an investigation; but the investigation will not be complete until the study of moral terminology has been supplemented by a study of the actions performed in the book or the society in question and the attitudes shown towards them by those who have performed and those who have described them. Also we shall need to distinguish the ancient meanings of the words indicating moral concepts from the sense assigned to them in later antiquity, and from the meanings attached in modern times to the words generally thought to correspond with them.

The action of the *Iliad* takes place on two planes, a human and a divine, which are closely linked to one another by the various ways in which the gods influence human behaviour. The Greek notion of the divine, it can never be said too often, differed utterly from the Jewish or Christian notion. Between men and gods there is no comparison in point of beauty, happiness and power. The gods live for ever, and meet with little but good fortune; men either meet with nothing but ill fortune or at best are given a mixed lot; after death, their existence in Hades will hardly be an existence. Zeus may be father of gods and men in the sense that he is their ruler; but men in general are not the children of Zeus. Homer says nothing of their origins; the first poet who does says that they were created out of stones.⁸ Their special protector in Greek myth after Homer was not Zeus but Prometheus, one of the early generation of gods which that of Zeus supplanted. In the *Iliad*, as in all early Greek poetry, the gods look on men with disdain mingled with slight pity. "I should not be sensible," says Apollo to Poseidon when he meets him in the battle of the gods, "if I fought with you on account of wretched mortals, who like leaves now flourish, as they eat the fruit of the field, and now fade away lifeless."⁹ "Nothing," says Zeus himself, "is more wretched than a man, of all things that breathe and move upon the earth."¹⁰

Miserable as men are, the gods are jealous of their own superiority, and are quick to punish even the least action which may seem to challenge or deny it; they treat men as the nobles

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of an early stage of a rural society treat the peasants. "Never shall they be like each other," says Apollo as he pushes down Diomedes from the wall of Troy, "the tribe of immortal gods and the tribe of men that walk upon the earth."¹¹ The gods have their favourites among men, who are the children of gods or their descendants. Even these favourites must walk warily; it is dangerous to provoke a god, even if another god has encouraged one to do so and for the moment can be trusted to protect one. By the aid of gods, men can achieve great triumphs; but such aid never comes except to the valiant, the god-descended, and even they cannot, like the heroes of the Old Testament, leave all to the god, but must exert themselves to the best of their ability.¹² Further, the gods, like the heroes themselves, demand that men render them the honour due to them, their *time*, and on any who fail to do so they take a terrible revenge. If Niobe speaks slightly of Leto,¹³ if Oeneus omits, whether through forgetfulness or ignorance, a sacrifice due to Artemis,¹⁴ if Agamemnon offends Apollo by refusing to release the daughter of his priest,¹⁵ the god will show no mercy. From a modern point of view, or indeed from that of Plato and many subsequent Greek thinkers, such gods are monstrously unjust. But for Homer, and for later poets also, they are perfectly within their rights; Aeschylus does not blame the conduct of Apollo towards Cassandra nor Sophocles that of Athene towards Ajax. The early Greek concept of order required that each god and man should receive his proper *time*; and besides meaning justice, *dike* meant the preservation of the established order.¹⁶

One god, even in the *Iliad*, is in a different position from that of all others with regard to justice. The order of human communities is safeguarded, in the last resort, by kings; the gods too have their monarch. In the *Iliad* Zeus is supreme among the gods, quite as much as in any later poet. All the rest together cannot pull him down from heaven to earth;¹⁷ he can force even the mightiest gods, Poseidon, Hera, and Athene together, to bow to his authority. He exercises a vague general control over

events, and since his thought is identical with future happenings, the future can be known by him or by whoever knows his mind. *Moirai*, one's "portion," is in the last resort identical with the will of Zeus; when Hera reminds him that he cannot save his son Sarpedon¹⁸ she is only warning him that he cannot sacrifice to a sudden whim his own settled policy.¹⁹ How far is that policy determined in accordance with justice?

In Dodds' view those who think that Zeus in the *Iliad* is concerned with justice as such "confuse the punishment of perjury as an offence against the divine *time* and the punishment of offences against hospitality with a concern for justice as such."²⁰ Zeus in Homer possesses three of the functions later closely associated with that of protecting justice; he is protector of oaths (*Horkios*), protector of strangers and of the law of host and guest (*Xeinios*) and protector of suppliants (*Hikesios*); the last two functions are in their origins practically identical. Those who break an oath or injure a stranger have offended against the *time* of Zeus, and are punishable by him. When Menelaus kills the Trojan Pisandros, he declares that the Trojans have not feared the grievous wrath of loud-thundering Zeus, Zeus *Xeinios*, who will one day destroy their lofty city, they who have carried off his wife together with much property.²¹ That may explain why at the very outset of the war Zeus has sent to the Achaeans two omens that guarantee their final triumph; has he done that merely as protector of the law of host and guest, or has he some general concern for justice? When both sides agree to settle the issue between them by a single combat between Paris and Menelaus and Paris is defeated, the Trojans treacherously break the truce. Agamemnon declares that Zeus will unfailingly destroy the Trojans, however long it may be before his inevitable punishment overtakes them.²² Is that merely because Zeus is the protector of oaths and compacts, or does he out of a concern for justice punish the guilty?

If we go through the surprisingly few instances of the word *dike* and its cognates to be found in the *Iliad*,²³ we find comparatively little evidence bearing upon this problem. In epic

δίκη first means a judgment given by a judge or an assertion of his right made by a party to a dispute. It may be "straight" or "crooked." Zeus by *dike* makes the *themistes* straight; kings by *dike* sort the *themistes*. The use of the word as "right" or "custom" occurs only in the *Odyssey*. Only once in each epic does it occur in a general or abstract sense. There is, it is true, one passage which if taken at its face value makes decisively against Dodds' view, and which Chantraine acknowledges to be the sole exception to his rule that Zeus in the *Iliad* does not act to ensure distributive justice. The scene as Patroclus pursues the fleeing Trojans²⁴ is compared to that caused by an autumn storm sent by Zeus to punish men "who by violence pronounce in the market-place crooked judgments and drive out justice, having no care for the concern of the gods." The words recall a well-known passage of the *Works and Days*,²⁵ and the convenient explanation of their apparently unique character has been to dismiss them as an "interpolation" based on Hesiod, or as the work of a late poet influenced by Hesiodic notions.²⁶ True, the passage coheres well enough with the doctrine of the *Litai*, the spirits of entreaty, set forth by Phoenix in the embassy to Achilles; but that passage too is regarded by some scholars as a late addition to the *Iliad*, whose theology is not consistent with that found in the older and more authentic portions of the poem. For various reasons, most of which have been clearly set forth by other scholars, I find these opinions unconvincing.²⁷ I find them all the more so because I hope presently to show that the doctrines expressed in the simile of the flood and in the speech of Phoenix are in fact perfectly consistent with the theology of the *Iliad* as a whole.

But for the present we must consider the attributes of Zeus. He derives them from the attributes of kings as they were known in early times.²⁸ One important function of a king in Homer is that of protecting the *themistes*—customs, usages, principles of justice.²⁹ A king is one to whom Zeus has given the sceptre and the *themistes*, that he may take counsel for his people;³⁰ the Achaean chiefs "protect the *themistes* that come

from Zeus," ³¹ as Sarpedon protects Lycia "by his judgments and his strength." ³² In the underworld of the *Odyssey* the great king Minos gives justice among the dead; that is he does not judge them for their acts committed upon earth, but settles their disputes.³³ The justice which the kings dispensed was a rough reciprocal justice, summed up in the line from a lost epic which the emperor Claudius was fond of quoting, "If he suffers as he did, straight justice will be done." ³⁴ Since it is from Zeus that kings derive the *themistes*, and since his attributes were obviously based on theirs, it would be strange if he had not, as they had, the function of protecting justice. Offenders against oaths or strangers were considered as offenders also against the *time* of Zeus, and since a god punished offenders against his *time*, were punishable by him. Was the same true of all offenders against justice? Whether the justice that Zeus champions in the *Iliad* is in all respects similar to modern notions of justice is of course another matter.

To know the nature of Zeus' justice, we must examine his attitude towards the most important problems concerning right and wrong that are debated in the *Iliad*. Let us take first the quarrel between Greeks and Trojans caused by the abduction of Helen and the theft of property that accompanied it. "Right triumphs," says Adkins, "but not because it is right." ³⁵ If we survey the issue solely from the viewpoint of the politics of Olympus, we may well conclude that Zeus' natural partiality for the Trojans is overborne by a powerful combination of gods who for reasons of their own are bent upon the Trojans' ruin. But if we consider the matter from the viewpoint of the human actors in the drama, we must remember the pledge given to Agamemnon at the beginning of the war, the certainty of Menelaus that Zeus Xeinius will punish the abduction of his wife, the certainty of Agamemnon that Zeus Horkios will punish the treacherous breaking of the truce by Pandarus. Can we really feel certain that the eventual triumph of the Greeks has no connection with the undoubted truth that Paris provoked the quarrel by abducting Helen? That is hinted in the last book of

the *Iliad*, and the old fashion of dismissing the passage as an "interpolation" is now less popular than it once was.³⁶

In terms of Olympian politics, Zeus seems to fall in with the will of the preponderant party among the gods, just as an earthly monarch might decide an issue in accordance with the wishes of the most powerful among his nobles. In terms of human action, his decision is in accord with the basic principle of justice, that the aggressor must be punished. Is this accord merely a coincidence? Anyone who accepts the argument I have put forward to show that the protection of justice must have been one of Zeus' attributes from the earliest times will hardly think so.

Let us now test this conclusion by a consideration of the central episode of the *Iliad*, the dispute between Agamemnon and Achilles which begins in Book I and is settled only in Book XIX. It will be necessary to examine not only the part played by Zeus in relation to this dispute, but the moral attitudes towards it of the human actors and, if possible, those towards which the reader is inclined by the suggestions of the poet himself. If the notion of Zeus' justice which I have outlined is correct, we shall expect to find implicit in the poet's treatment of the action a view of justice or righteousness not out of harmony with that notion. Much of what I say may seem obvious and familiar. But recent studies of Homer, particularly in English-speaking countries, have been so much concerned with the historical background of the poems, with the problems of their composition and transmission and with other matters apart from their content³⁷ that there seems to me some warrant for a discussion of the central problems of the plot of the *Iliad* as it exists. In the attempt to analyse the moral attitudes implicit in the poem, we shall need to guard against assuming that Homer was always more interested in these than in the emotions of his heroes. The indispensable framework which the received morality provides must not be treated as though it were itself the main subject of the poem.

Before starting I must say a word about theories which if true would rule out the possibility that the *Iliad* is a poem in which

justice or righteousness plays any significant part. By an analysis of words used by Homer to describe facets of the mind or mental processes, Hermann Fränkel has argued that Homer had no coherent, articulated concept of the self; Bruno Snell and his followers³⁸ have tried to show that Homer has no cognisance of any concept denoting the psychic whole, of any notion that might correspond to our word "soul." "Psychic organs such as the *noos* and the *thymos*," Snell maintains, "are at the mercy of wizardry, and . . . men who interpret their own mental processes along these lines consider themselves a battleground of arbitrary forces."³⁹ When Homer describes a mental process leading up to what we should call a decision, he is incapable, according to Snell, of describing it properly, because he lacks a word denoting the psychic whole which might decide. That theory, by depriving Homer's characters of all responsibility for their decisions, would make it impossible for the *Iliad* to be a poem dealing with great moral issues, a poem set against the background of definite moral attitudes.

Snell is complaining, it has been pointed out, that Homer lacks the concept of will;⁴⁰ no wonder, since it is a concept of considerable sophistication. Does this lack make him incapable of describing a decision? Albin Lesky's sound treatment⁴¹ helps me to save many words here. The pattern of a right decision, it has long been recognised, is provided by a passage in Book XI.⁴² Odysseus is cut off and surrounded by the enemy; for a moment he considers flight, but in the end decides to stay and fight it out. "What is to become of me?" he says, "Great harm is done if I flee for fear of their numbers, but it is yet worse if I am taken alone; for the other Greeks have been frightened away by the son of Kronos. But why does my *thymos* say these things to me? No, I know that cowards leave the battle, but that he who excels in fighting must stand firmly, whether he is struck or strikes another." For a moment the person facing the alternatives weighs them in his mind; then he remembers the knowledge of the principles of right behaviour on such an occasion which he possesses, and this memory determines his course of

action. A wrong decision, as we shall see presently, occurs when the decider's passions prevent his *thymos* from functioning correctly; his passions have been set in motion by the action of a god. It is important to observe that when a human action, whether right or wrong, is put down to the action of a god, that does not mean that the human actor is not held to be responsible for his decisions. Agamemnon can to some extent mitigate his shame at having caused a disaster by his quarrel with Achilles, but that does not cause him to deny responsibility and withdraw his offer of compensation; Achilles knows that his obstinacy was due to *ate* sent by Zeus, but none the less feels responsible for the death of Patroclus.⁴³ In each instance, also, the divinely motivated act can also be fully motivated in human terms; the part played by the god can always be subtracted without making nonsense of the action.

This double motivation and double responsibility, human and divine, has always been difficult to grasp. The old view that the divine part in human action represented a mere *façon de parler*, died hard; in recent times it has been defended by such scholars as Martin Nilsson and Paul Mazon.⁴⁴ But the most prevalent modern view of the question has been shaped by the tendency begun by Nietzsche and carried further by his friend Rohde to correct the error made by the old classicism when it denied proper emphasis to the irrational features of Greek thinking. Scholars now rightly insist that the Homeric religion is real, and that the gods and their activity must be taken seriously; also, they have become aware that early Greek thought retains many primitive survivals. In consequence some of them have gone too far in the new direction, believing that or acting as if Homer's world were itself primitive and depriving his human characters of all power of decision and mental independence. That is a tendency which has to be resisted.⁴⁵ If we strike a proper balance, we must acknowledge that Homer's gods are effective and his religion real, but that his human characters are free to decide and are responsible for their decisions.

Let us now examine the quarrel between Agamemnon and

Achilles that is the central incident of the *Iliad*. In the opening lines of the poem, the Muse is exhorted to tell of the quarrel of Agamemnon and Achilles, of how it caused many deaths, and how the design of Zeus was fulfilled. Clearly it was Zeus' purpose that many should perish. It is not reasonable to argue that the author of the *Iliad* is here imitating the author of the *Cypria*, who made Zeus cause the war in order to relieve the earth of its excess of population;⁴⁶ but the idea that this was why Zeus caused wars may well have existed at a very early date, as this passage might be taken to suggest. But the immediate cause of the quarrel is the action of Apollo, who punishes the Achaeans for Agamemnon's rejection of his priest's appeal for the return of his daughter by sending plague. Though the plague ceases on the return of Chryseis, during the debate over her return there has occurred the quarrel that will prove so disastrous.⁴⁷

Unwillingly Agamemnon agrees to renounce Chryseis, but he demands another prize of equal value. Had he been dealt with tactfully he might have been induced to forget this suggestion; but instead of leaving it to others, such as Nestor, to lead him away from it, Achilles becomes angry. This causes Agamemnon to make the fatal assertion that he will rob one of the other chieftains of his prize to compensate himself for the loss of his own.⁴⁸ Achilles furiously reminds the king that he is here not in his own quarrel, but in that of Agamemnon and his brother, and that though his share in the fighting is greater than theirs, his booty is much less. Concern over property, even human property, would hardly have troubled the antagonists so much were it not that in their society one's share in booty reflected one's degree of *time*. Their quarrel is over *time* and only secondarily over property.

Achilles threatens to leave for home at once, and Agamemnon angrily replies that he is free to go, since he has others who will show him *time*, and particularly Zeus himself.⁴⁹ Achilles, he says, is the one among the chiefs whom he most hates, since at all times contention (*eris*) and battles and war are dear to

him. If Achilles has mighty strength, that is something that a god has given him. That attempt to belittle his opponent's chief asset is ineffective; the gifts of the gods, as Paris reminds Hector,⁵⁰ are to be made the most of. Some modern interpreters ought to be surprised at Agamemnon rebuking Achilles for loving only battles and war, since in their opinion all Homeric heroes cared for little else. But Agamemnon means to say that there are virtues other than the martial, and in these Achilles is deficient. Later, soon after their reconciliation, Achilles will virtually admit this charge; and he will curse *eris* and *cholos* (anger), the powers which have caused the disastrous quarrel. Agamemnon ends his speech by positively asserting that he will take away Briseis, and only the dramatic intervention of Athene prevents Achilles from drawing his sword and instantly dispatching him.

Taking the goddess' advice, Achilles now abuses Agamemnon with great violence.⁵¹ Yet when he accuses him of cowardice and of avarice he is being unjust; Agamemnon, like Achilles himself, has acted out of wounded pride. Now Achilles solemnly swears that the day shall come when the Achaeans shall miss him when they are perishing in great numbers before the man-slaying Hector. At this point⁵² Nestor, the person best qualified by seniority and prestige to settle the dispute, makes his intervention, but by this time both antagonists are too angry to listen to his good advice.

Adkins⁵³ holds that Agamemnon as the more powerful chieftain has the right to take Briseis if he will, and only comes to regret it later because it has led to a military disaster. That is not how Nestor during his attempt at mediation views the matter. He does indeed start by warning the two quarrellers that nothing could better please the enemy than their dispute; but he goes on to point out to each in what way he is acting wrongly. Noble as he is, he says, let Agamemnon not take the girl, but leave her with the owner to whom the Achaeans originally gave her; and let not Achilles quarrel with the king, since a king to whom Zeus has given glory has greater *time* than other men.

Achilles may be stronger and have a goddess for his mother, but Agamemnon is mightier (*pherteros*), since his subjects are more numerous. He ends with a solemn appeal to both parties to restrain themselves; Achilles should put a stop to his *menos*, Agamemnon should let go his anger.

This speech of Nestor's may contain no mention of an abstract notion of justice, but justice is what Nestor is aiming at; he wishes to settle the dispute by persuading each participant to accord to the other his proper *time*. Had Nestor and not one of the disputants been the king, they would have been obliged to follow his instructions. But the quarrel is one in which the king, whose duty it is to give justice to his subjects, is himself a party, so that the human machinery for securing justice cannot be set in motion.

However, Achilles is not in the position of an ordinary vassal of Agamemnon. First, he is the son of Thetis, whose influence with Zeus is exceptionally great, even for a goddess; the Achaeans are in no position to do without the tremendous military power which Achilles commands. Faced with a difficulty, a Greek will first pray to a god; but he must then reinforce the god's action on the divine plane by applying on the human plane whatever effort he is capable of making. Achilles and his contingent withdrew from battle, and with the aid of Zeus their absence swiftly leads to a severe reverse. In terms of the politics of Olympus, Zeus flouts for the time being the wishes of the Achaean supporters among the gods to do honour to Achilles and thereby fulfil his special obligation towards Thetis. He does not act, Adkins complains, because he respects justice; but we must observe that just as in decreeing Troy's eventual destruction he is fulfilling not only the wishes of the pro-Achaean gods but also the demands of justice, so in acceding for the time to the wishes of Thetis he is ensuring the triumph of Achilles in a dispute in which Achilles is undoubtedly in the right. But that is not all there is to Zeus' purpose, as we shall see later.

During the second book Agamemnon tests his men's readiness to fight by proposing to return home, and is alarmed

when many of them seem inclined to take him at his word. During the debate that follows, Thersites reproaches him with having dishonoured Achilles, "a much better man than himself"; it has been observed that Thersites echoes many of the arguments used by Achilles in Book 1.⁵⁴ Thersites is soon silenced, but in the conversation with Nestor that follows Agamemnon declares that Zeus has made trouble for him. He gives as instance the quarrel with Achilles, actually admitting that he himself provoked it. If they could once agree together, he says, the fall of Troy could not be long delayed.⁵⁵ It is not always remembered that Agamemnon admits responsibility for the quarrel at this early stage.

At that time the situation is not yet critical, but by the time of the Achaean assembly at the beginning of the ninth book, the army has been heavily defeated, and the need for the return of Achilles has become imperative. Agamemnon in his opening speech⁵⁶ blames Zeus, who has made him the victim of *ate* and of *apate* (deception); that is true, but according to the rules it is no excuse for his own disastrous mistake. After Diomedes has rebuked Agamemnon for his lack of courage, Nestor tactfully proposes adjourning the assembly and holding a banquet so that the chiefs may discuss the most important issues in private; at this banquet he persuades Agamemnon, without much difficulty, to offer atonement to Achilles. Adkins⁵⁷ maintains that atonement is offered only because of the military reverse, and that moral issues do not enter into it. Now suppose Nestor and the other chiefs had thought Agamemnon justified in taking Briseis, but had become convinced because of the military situation that Agamemnon must be persuaded to offer atonement to Achilles. Nestor would have said, "Son of Atreus, in your quarrel with Achilles everything you said was right; but Achilles is much loved by Zeus, and without him we shall be driven into the sea; for the army's sake swallow your pride and offer him atonement." That is not what Nestor does say. What he says is, after leading up to the point with infinite tact, "I was right from the start, when I advised you not to take away Briseis;

but you, giving way to your mighty *thymos*, dishonoured a mighty man, whom even the gods honour." Moral error and mistake are in Greek thinking often not easy to distinguish; but it seems fair to say that Nestor tells Agamemnon that in the quarrel with Achilles he was in the wrong. Since Agamemnon has already admitted this, it is not surprising that he at once tells Nestor that he agrees with him;⁵⁸ he has been governed by *ate*, obeying his baneful mind. The custom of Achæan society requires that Agamemnon's regret be expressed in material terms, and he describes the enormous compensation, enough by itself to make its owner a prince of some importance, which he will offer to Achilles. "All this I will give him," he says, "if he will cease from his wrath. Let him be won over—it is Hades who is not to be appeased nor to be won over, and that is why he is the most hateful to men of all the gods—and let him meet my wish, in so far as I am more a king, and claim to be greater by birth."⁵⁹ The argument that one should give way to one who is more a king has been used by Nestor, as well as by Agamemnon himself, in the first book, although the ambassadors are not stupid enough to use it while they are pleading with Achilles. It appears that it is one to which some weight is meant to be attached, and the same is true of the argument that a man should not remain obdurate in the face of pleading, which will occur again later.

"The fact that Agamemnon has incurred social disapproval for his failure," writes Adkins⁶⁰ "gives the transaction an appearance of 'quiet morality' which it does not possess. The only aspect of *arete* in which Agamemnon has fallen short is success in war; the quieter virtues are so much less important that Agamemnon does not see the transaction in this light at all." To say that is to neglect the clear implications of what is said both by Nestor and by Agamemnon. Even in a heroic society, in which feelings of shame and not feelings of guilt do the main work of morality, the so-called quieter virtues are essential, above all loyalty, without which not even a gang of thieves, let alone an army, can hope to operate successfully.

It will already be clear that I am not one of those who regard the ninth book as the late addition of a post-Homeric poet;⁶¹ certainly there seems to have been an earlier version without Phoenix, but that may have been, as some have argued, an earlier version by the poet of the ninth book himself, whom I identify with the "monumental composer," or as I prefer to call him, Homer.⁶²

After drawing Achilles' attention⁶³ to the extreme gravity of the military situation, Odysseus reminds him of the advice his father Peleus gave him before he left for Troy, "restrain the mighty *thymos* in your breast, for friendliness is better, and abstain from mischief-making *eris*, so that the Argives may honour you, both young and old." Peleus, it would seem, was able to appreciate some at least of the "quieter virtues." Achilles, says Odysseus, is forgetting this advice; let him now abandon the anger caused by his aggrieved *thymos* and accept the great gifts which he is offered. Even if Achilles cannot forgive Agamemnon, he continues, let him pity the other Achaeans, who will honour him like a god.⁶⁴ If he does, he will win great glory; for now Hector, elated by his triumph, will come near the ships, where Achilles may catch and kill him. Before appealing to his love of glory, Odysseus has appealed to him to pity the Achaeans; they deserve his pity because as a partner in the expedition he owed them a debt of loyalty.

The other speakers add no new arguments to those of Odysseus, but help to bring out more vividly the emotional implications of the arguments already used. Phoenix too⁶⁵ urges him to subdue his *thymos*. Even the gods, whose *arete*, *time*, and power are greater than those of men allow themselves to be persuaded; like Agamemnon in the discussion before the sending of the embassy, he thinks obduracy in itself an evil. *Ate* is strong and moves swiftly over the earth to wreak havoc among men; after her slowly come the *Litai*, prayers or Entreaties, repairing the damage she has done. Achilles should do them honour, daughters of Zeus, as they are made by a transparent piece of allegory; and in illustration he tells how Meleager lost by his obduracy

the gifts he should have been given for defending Calydon from the Curetes.⁶⁶

Of the three ambassadors Ajax has most in common with Achilles, and it is his short speech⁶⁷ that makes most impression on him. He reproaches Achilles for having put into his breast a *thymos* that is savage, and for paying no regard to the *philotes* (dearness, or friendship) of his companions, who have honoured him beyond all others. It is the accepted thing in such a case, Ajax insists, to accept a proper offer of compensation; men have done so even for the life of a brother or a son. The *thymos* which the gods have put into Achilles is unrelenting and cruel.⁶⁸

A moment before⁶⁹ Ajax has said that it is Achilles himself who has put his present *thymos* into his breast, but there is no real inconsistency. Zeus has indeed sent *ate* to take away his *phrenes*, Zeus has indeed put into his breast such a *thymos* as Ajax has described. But Achilles cannot evade responsibility for the decisions which he takes under the influence of this *thymos*; he himself, as well as Zeus, has put it there.

The speeches of Phoenix and Ajax bring out the situation in all its concreteness against the background of ethical assumptions which the speech of Odysseus has already supplied. There exists a code of behaviour according to which a man is thought to be acting unreasonably if he rejects an offer of compensation, provided it is sufficient to ensure him the proper degree of *time*. Achilles' behaviour is particularly unreasonable, since he is placing his grievance before the claims of friendship and loyalty. When Phoenix makes the *Litai* daughters of Zeus, it is partly because he wishes to lay stress on their importance, as later Pindar will call Gold the child of Zeus and Euripides, again in a special context, will say the same of love.⁷⁰ But it is also because when the *Litai* are rejected it is to Zeus that they go for their redress, just as in Hesiod's *Works and Days*⁷¹ *Dike*, when she is being maltreated, cries out to Zeus and he punishes her oppressors. The affinity between the doctrines has lent colour to the suggestion that the ninth book is a late addition to the

Iliad which shows the influence of Hesiod, or at least of the morality current in the Hesiodic world. Whether Homer—the monumental composer of the *Iliad*—was earlier or later than Hesiod is not so easy to determine as most people have usually assumed; many of the differences between them could as easily be explained in terms of social or of geographical separation as in terms of time.⁷² But whatever the chronological relation between the *Iliad* and the *Works and Days*, it is not safe to assume that the moral climate of the two poems is altogether separate and distinct. It must be admitted that the concepts of Zeus as the protector of oaths and as the champion of strangers, hosts, and guests are present in the *Iliad*, and I have argued that they are not easily separated from the concept of Zeus as the protector of justice which Hesiod in the *Works and Days* so explicitly puts forward. With that concept the doctrine of the *Litai* has obvious affinities.

The note of strong disapproval struck by Ajax is of great importance. He drives home far more effectively than either of the other speakers that according to accepted moral standards Achilles, who until now has been in the right in his dispute with Agamemnon, has now put himself in the wrong, and this is presently confirmed by the round condemnation of the conduct of Achilles by Diomedes.⁷³ In his answer to Ajax, Achilles cannot help showing much sympathy with what Ajax has said. "Ajax, Zeus-descended son of Telamon, lord of peoples," he says,⁷⁴ "in all things you have seemed to speak in accordance with my *thymos*. But my heart swells with anger when I remember what happened, how the son of Atreus treated me with despite among the Achaeans, as though I had been an immigrant without honour." In conclusion, he does not repeat that he will return home next day, but simply says that he will take no part in the fighting till Hector shall attack the ships of his own followers.

When Achilles admits that all Ajax has said is in accordance with his own *thymos*, he is recognising the strength of Ajax' argument, and in effect acknowledging that he is right; but

since his *thymos* is swelling with anger, he cannot bring himself to act upon his knowledge. Let us consider the decision of Achilles in the light of the decision of Odysseus in Book XI not to run away, but to stay and fight the enemy.⁷⁵ Like Odysseus, Achilles knows, as he admits to Ajax, what he ought to do; however, the anger that makes his heart swell is, despite the advice given him by his father and recalled by Odysseus, too strong for him. Later, in Book XIX, Achilles will describe his behaviour in theological terms and in a way different from but not inconsistent with his description of it here; we shall come to that passage presently.

Towards the end of Book XI,⁷⁶ Achilles sees Nestor escorting a wounded man out of the battle and sends Patroclus to verify his guess that it is Machaon. Nestor seizes the opportunity to persuade Patroclus to use his influence over Achilles. Nestor's long narration of his own past triumphs is designed to arouse Achilles' appetite for glory, but both at the beginning and at the end of his speech he asks whether Achilles feels no pity for his friends.⁷⁷ "You are impossible," says Patroclus to Achilles when he finally returns to him,⁷⁸ "may I never be visited by such anger as that which you guard, you who are terrible in your *arete*. What good shall any born later get from you"—here Patroclus is using one of Nestor's arguments—"if you do not save the Argives from ruin they do not deserve? Pitiless man, the horseman Peleus was not after all your father nor Thetis your mother, but the gray sea bore you and the steep rocks, so relentless is your purpose." If Achilles has in mind his mother's prophecy that he will die early if he continues to fight, let him send Patroclus in his place, as Nestor has suggested.

Achilles replies⁷⁹ that he is in no way moved by the prophecy, and we must believe him; though in his reply to Odysseus he has used the prophecy as an additional reason for not giving way to the ambassadors, fear of death by itself would never have caused him to withdraw from battle. But grievous pain comes over his *thymos* and his heart, he says, when Agamem-

non tries to damage a man that is his peer and take back his prize, "as though I had been an immigrant without *time*." But now he says that all this belongs to the past, and that his anger could not have lasted for ever. True, he has said that he will not cease from anger until the fighting reaches his own ships; but now let Patroclus put on his armour and lead the Myrmidons into battle. He must save the ships from being burned and must obey Achilles' instructions, that he may win great glory for Achilles and that the Greeks may restore Briseis and bring great gifts with her. Once the ships are safe, Patroclus must return, otherwise the *time* of Achilles will be less, and some god may intervene to help the Trojans. Clearly Achilles is eager to secure the greatest possible amount of *time*; he wishes to avoid the fate of Meleager, who returned to battle only when the Curetes had actually set fire to Calydon, and so lost the great gifts that he would otherwise have received. He says nothing of pity for his friends as a motive; and his wish that all Trojans and Greeks except Patroclus and himself may perish shows that Nestor has been wrong in arguing from his interest in the identity of the wounded man escorted by Patroclus that he feels pity. But it is clear that Patroclus himself feels pity, and argues strongly that Achilles ought to feel it. The obligation to feel pity is bound up with loyalty. But Achilles is still restrained from returning to the battle by the dire pain that comes over his *thymos* when he remembers Agamemnon's insult.

Let us now return to the plan of Zeus which the poet has told us in the opening lines of the poem was accomplished. In Book VIII⁸⁰ Zeus has told Hera that Hector shall not cease from battle until Achilles shall return to the war after the fight for Patroclus' body, and in Book XV⁸¹ he tells her in more detail what course events are destined to take. In promising Thetis that he will honour her son by giving the Trojans victory till he returns, Zeus has granted Achilles a favour which he will bitterly regret. For the Trojan victory will lead to the death of Patroclus, sent into battle by Achilles himself. That

in turn will lead, Zeus says to Hera, to the death of Hector, and soon after to the fall of Troy. Had Patroclus remembered the orders of Achilles and returned to camp after driving the Trojans from the ships, he would have escaped death; but, in the words used by the poet at this point, the purpose of Zeus is always stronger than that of men. Achilles has had his wish granted, only to have it recoil on him with bitter irony; Aeschylus in his *Achillean trilogy*⁸² will make him apply to his own case the fable of the eagle who recognizes on the arrow that has brought him death some feathers of his own. When we consider the nature of the plan of Zeus, we understand why Agamemnon can exclaim that none of the gods is deadlier than Zeus.⁸³ Yet neither Agamemnon nor Achilles can complain that Zeus has been unjust; according to the terms of Zeus' justice, each has got what he deserved.

When Achilles learns of Patroclus' death, he has no wish to survive unless he can avenge it upon the killer.⁸⁴ This attitude has often been considered to be that of a savage. Hector has killed Patroclus not in a private quarrel, but in the course of a war. Achilles feels a strong desire to appease his own feeling of guilt. He has been of no use, he says, to Patroclus nor to any of those friends of his whom Hector has slain—here at last he admits feeling pity for the Achaeans—but supreme as he is in battle he sits here a useless burden on the earth.⁸⁵ Not that this emotion is his only reason for wanting to kill Hector. If vengeance is taken upon his killer, Patroclus will receive great *time*; the word *timaoros*, meaning "protector of someone's time," is regularly used in tragedy to mean "avenger," and this attitude is certainly as old as Homer's time. All Achilles can now do for Patroclus is to do him funeral honours and to kill Hector. In war he is supreme; in counsel, he now admits, others are his betters; and he utters a curse upon two powers that have been his ruin, *eris* and *cholos*. Death in the end is not to be avoided; even the mighty Heracles died at last; meanwhile, let him win glory and give the Trojans cause to know that he has returned to battle. Achilles speaks of glory, for the time to win

it has arrived; but the glory is only incidental. He finally sacrifices his life not for glory, but out of remorse for his responsibility for the death of Patroclus.⁸⁶ In Homer's world loyalty to an individual friend, like loyalty to the group, is not insignificant; I suppose loyalty to one's friends counts as a co-operative virtue. Achilles' insistence on honouring Patroclus by giving Hector's body to the dogs is clearly contrary to the prevailing standards. When he rejects Hector's plea that his body be returned, Hector warns him that the gods may hold this act against him when the time comes for him to perish at the Scaean gates at the hands of Paris and Apollo. The "unseemly" actions he performs on Hector's body⁸⁷ are disapproved of by Apollo, who reproaches the other gods with abetting "the deadly Achilles, who has no righteous mind, nor can his intention in his breast be turned aside, but like a lion's his purposes are savage, a lion's who yielding to his mighty strength and his proud spirit goes against the flocks of men to take his meal." Thus Achilles has destroyed pity, and he lacks *aidos* which does men great harm or great good. ". . . This is in no way to his honour or his good; let him take care that noble as he is we do not feel *nemesis* against him."⁸⁸ Zeus sends Thetis to tell Achilles that the gods are angry with him, himself most of all.⁸⁹ But in sending Iris to tell Priam to ransom Hector, he tells her that Achilles will accept the offer, "for he is not foolish or aimless or wicked, but will in all kindness spare a suppliant."⁹⁰ Speaking of Achilles' treatment of Hector's body, Apollo has said that he has no righteous *phrenes*; Zeus also deplores his treatment of the body, but denies that he is *aphron*, without *phrenes*. Clearly his treatment of the body is condemned, although Zeus' account of his character is correct, as his conduct towards Priam later proves.

In the assembly of Book XIX, Achilles formally lays aside his anger⁹¹ and Agamemnon makes an apology for his conduct.⁹² He has been blamed for the disaster, he says, but he was not guilty (*aitios*); it was Zeus, and his portion, and the Erinyes that walks in darkness who in the assembly put savage *ate* into his

mind. No one is proof against *ate*, not even Zeus himself, and to prove it Agamemnon tells how Zeus himself was caused by *ate* to give to Eurystheus the privilege he had designed for his son Heracles. That helps Agamemnon to save face, but it does not cancel his responsibility; and he gives orders for the immediate payment to Achilles of the vast compensation he has offered him.

Soon afterwards, in his brief speech made before offering sacrifice,⁹³ Achilles in turn gives a theological explanation of his conduct during the quarrel. "Father Zeus," he says, "great are the *atai* which you send to men. Never would the son of Atreus have for so long stirred the *thymos* in my breast, nor would he have taken the girl against my will in his stubbornness; but Zeus wished death to come to many of the Achaeans."

Along with the account of how he made his decision which at the time of the embassy Achilles gives to Ajax, this shows how a disastrous error is conceived as happening. *Ate*, sent by Zeus, takes away the *phrenes* of the person concerned; as a result his *thymos* is rendered uncontrollable, his heart swells with *cholos* and the knowledge of how to make a right decision which he possesses is rendered ineffective. The gods put a fierce *thymos* in his chest⁹⁴ but at the same time he himself puts it there.⁹⁵ Like Agamemnon, Achilles blames Zeus, but he does not deny his own responsibility.

The *Iliad* contains several other instances of the operation of *ate* which conform to the same pattern. Patroclus, we have seen, neglects the command of Achilles to return to camp once he had driven the Trojans from the ships, "because the purpose of Zeus is always stronger than that of men." Hector forgets that the guarantee of success given him by Zeus through Iris in Book XI⁹⁶ was to last only until nightfall and rejects the advice of Pulydamas to order a retreat to the city after Achilles has returned to battle. His wits and those of the other Trojans have been taken away by Athene;⁹⁷ later, when he is confronted with the infuriated Achilles, it is the fear that the Trojans will reproach him with this error that prevents him from trying

to escape.⁹⁸ In one instance the god is not content with invisibly prompting the wrong decision, but appears in person to bear down the resistance of the human agent. This happens after the duel between Paris and Menelaus in Book III; Aphrodite has rescued Paris from certain death and carries him to Helen's chamber; then in the form of an old woman she summons Helen to go to bed with him.⁹⁹ Helen, as we know from her conversations with Priam and with Hector, is tormented with regret for her elopement, and now expresses horror at the suggestion; but the goddess, casting aside the pretence that she is not herself, with dire threats forces her into submission. Priam has tried to console Helen by telling her that it is not she, but the gods who are to blame, and in a sense this is the truth; but according to the rule the human agent must take the responsibility even for a god-prompted decision.¹⁰⁰ The human agent knows what is right, but the god overbears his will. In the other instances the god acts by working on the agent's passion, but in that of Helen a kind of allegorical picture is given of this process. If the part of the gods in these disastrous decisions was removed, the working of human passions that determine them, *eros*, *eris*, *cholos*, would still be manifest. That does not mean that the working of the gods is not real, or the religion not genuine; it is the great merit of those who have reasserted the importance of the irrational element in Greek thought to have insisted on this important truth. At the same time the divine motivation could be dispensed with and the human decision be the same. When the old classicism and in our time scholars like Nilsson called the divine machinery a mere *façon de parler*, they were not being quite as unintelligent as it has become the fashion to suppose. During the early stages of the epic tradition, the Homeric way of representing reflection and decision doubtless corresponded to men's cultural beliefs.¹⁰¹ How far they still did so when the *Iliad* took its final form is a question that will be worth asking.

I cannot express more clearly the difference between my view of the place occupied by religion and morality in the *Iliad* and

that taken by some recent critics than in terms of an expression borrowed by Dodds from modern anthropologists. In contradistinction to other cultures which are "guilt-cultures," he has called the culture described by Homer a "shame-culture."¹⁰² A useful definition of these terms known to me is given by the anthropologist J. K. Campbell.¹⁰³ "Both guilt and shame," he writes, "are internal states of conscience, but whereas shame is concerned with a man's failure to approach some ideal pattern of conduct, the reference of guilt and personal sin is to the transgression of interdicted limits. Shame relates to failure, especially in comparison with the achievement of others. It has an external sanction in the social abandonment which in some degree always accompanies public shame. The sense of guilt, on the other hand, is the consequence of acts which defy the commandments of God, whether they concern the relations between man and God, or social responsibilities that follow from common membership in a group. An act may, of course, provoke both a sense of guilt and a sense of shame. Which term will be used depends on whether the act is more generally regarded under the aspect of transgression, or of failure to live up to an ideal pattern of behaviour." My only objection to this definition is that it restricts the use of the word "guilt" to a religious use. I should include among the acts which cause men to feel guilt not simply acts which defy the commandments of God, but acts which defy the commandments of a social group, in fact laws and general standards of behaviour.

Generally speaking, it is easy to tell whether a given culture must be considered in a general sense a guilt-culture or a shame-culture. Clearly the countries around the eastern Mediterranean which were formerly under Turkish rule and also those of China and Japan are shame-cultures, while those of the United States, England, and other countries where Protestantism is or has been strong are guilt-cultures.¹⁰⁴ But I know no example of a culture of the one type which does not contain elements of the other also, and I doubt whether it is possible to point to a specimen of either type which is totally without an

admixture of the other. In Andalusia and in modern Greece, for instance, a shame-culture based on the concepts of pride and honour is found together with a strong belief in Christianity, a religion which especially in its Protestant but also in its Catholic form must make any culture which accepts it to a great extent a guilt-culture. These terms are relative, and can only be used as very general descriptions of the societies to which they are applied. Dodds of course recognises that this is so; but I wish he had not called the second chapter of his book "From Shame-Culture to Guilt-Culture," thereby obscuring the fact that in general Greek culture continued to be a shame-culture until well after the fifth century.¹⁰⁵

An argument of a general nature, which the particular case of Homeric Greece serves to confirm, suggests that from the start a shame-culture must contain elements of guilt-culture. A culture which contains any form of social organisation must set some value on the essentially co-operative value of loyalty; as another anthropologist puts it, "Duty, in the first instance, is for those with whom we share honour."¹⁰⁶ It may be hard to name an equivalent of "duty" or "loyalty" in Homeric Greek, but if the word is lacking the thing is not. The dispute between Agamemnon and Achilles is over honour; but even in a shame-culture disputes of honour must be settled by authority, unless anarchy is to prevail. Had such a dispute arisen between two lesser persons, the king would have settled it in the light of the *themistes*, the principles of justice given to kings by Zeus. In this case, the king is a party to the dispute; therefore Achilles has to assert his rights by the withdrawal of his services. In doing so, he is justified; by depriving him of his prize, Agamemnon has neglected an obligation implicit in his whole relation to the partners in the expedition, that he will respect the *time* of his subordinates. Later when he refused atonement Achilles puts himself in the wrong; his swelling *thymos* prevents him from satisfying the demands of loyalty to his friends and the general principle that a man should not remain obdurate. Much of the tragic effect resides in the ten-

sion between the demands of individual honour and those of loyalty to the group.

Like men the gods also have their king, whose attributes are based on those of human rulers. He is, as earthly kings should be but often are not, able to dominate his subjects by the threat of force; he is able to settle disputes among them and impose his will. Being father of gods and men, he rules over men also. To men living in their own communities he gives justice through their kings; strangers, who fall outside these communities, are under his protection in his capacity of *Xeinios*. His concern to punish offenders against justice originates from the concern to punish offenders against his particular *time* that is felt by any god. He defends the established order (*dike*) by punishing mortals whose injustices disturb it, and at the same time by sternly repressing any attempt of men to rise above the humble place where they belong. If according to Achilles¹⁰⁷ Zeus gives some men good and evil mixed and others unmixed evil, that is a mark not of his injustice but rather of his justice. What is just for mortals is not necessarily what mortals want. In the *Iliad* the plan of Zeus is accomplished; the actions of gods and men all finally conduce to the fulfilment of his will.¹⁰⁸ An incidental consequence of that fulfilment is that, just as the Trojans will finally receive rough justice in return for their aggression against Menelaus, both Agamemnon and Achilles receive rough justice for their injustice to each other and the rest of the Achaeans perpetrated during their quarrel.¹⁰⁹ Zeus himself, in furthering his plan, has caused them to commit those injustices by means of *ate*; how can it be just that Zeus should punish them? Already in Homeric times that question caused much perplexity.

II

The *Odyssey*: Hesiod: Early Lyrics

FEW PEOPLE doubt that the *Odyssey* is a poem in which Zeus and Justice play an important, and indeed a preponderating part: and few doubt that its theology is in some important ways different from that of the *Iliad*. Soon after the opening of the poem,¹ Zeus in the assembly of the gods comments on the death of Aegisthus, the murderer of Agamemnon, at the hands of his victim's son Orestes. Mortals, he complains, blame the gods for sending them evil, but in truth they themselves through their wicked recklessness have to endure pains beyond what is fated.² When Aegisthus was plotting to make love to Agamemnon's wife and kill her husband, the gods even sent their messenger Hermes to warn him of the inevitable consequences, but Aegisthus rejected the warning and has now paid the penalty. This speech of Zeus implies a belief radically different from that found in the *Iliad*.³ There the god puts evil ideas, no less than good ideas, into men's minds; that is how men's *moira*, the portion assigned them by the gods, comes to be fulfilled. When the god wishes to destroy a man, he sends Ate to take away his wits. But now Zeus denies that the gods put evil ideas into the minds of men, and even claims that they warn men against the evil ideas they themselves have thought of.

"Placed where it is, at the very beginning of the poem," says Dodds, "the remark sounds . . . programmatic":⁴ and in the *Odyssey* as a whole the programme which it announces is carried out. In the first half of the poem, the companions of Odysseus are warned by Tiresias⁵ of what will happen if they slaughter the cattle of the Sun; in the second half, the suitors are warned first by the old man Halitherses⁶ and later by the prophet Theoclymenus⁷ of what will happen if they persist in their wooing of Penelope. Gods often put good or clever ideas into the minds of men; Athene, for example, is constantly inspiring Odysseus with such notions; but evil ideas the gods never inspire. It is true that the human characters sometimes blame the gods for their misfortunes, but the poet, unlike the poet of the *Iliad*, never in his own person blames the gods; when Helen blames Ate, sent by Aphrodite, for her elopement⁸ or Odysseus blames Ate, sent by Zeus, for his having fallen asleep on the island of the Sun,⁹ the reader is not obliged to accept their point of view. The survival of Odysseus and his triumph over the suitors are the reward of *arete*. He has indeed offended one powerful god, Poseidon, but not by an action which in the eyes of Zeus and Justice is a crime; he blinds his son Polyphemos in self-defence. Polyphemos has ignored the *themistes* and scorned the gods,¹⁰ but Odysseus has been guilty of no worse offences than indiscretion in insisting on exploring the country of the Cyclopes and vanity in telling his defeated opponent his true name. In persecuting him, Poseidon is not punishing the guilty, but pursuing a private feud after the fashion of the Olympians. Odysseus enjoys the special protection of Athene, the closest of the gods to Zeus. This is because he fulfills the requirements of heroic virtue;¹¹ he has made regular sacrifices to the gods, he is as kind as a father to the people they have given him to rule, and with consistent good sense he has avoided overstepping the bounds which the gods set to human action. The conduct of the suitors, like that of Aegisthus, has been the opposite, and so they pay the penalty.¹²

As much as in the *Iliad*, Zeus is supreme among the gods;¹³

he sends men good or bad fortune,¹⁴ and does so according to their deserts. Mortals are the feeblest of all creatures nurtured by the earth. They are totally dependent on the good or bad fortune sent them by the gods. While good fortune lasts they persist in thoughtless optimism; if bad fortune comes, their only resource lies in endurance,¹⁵ and they must say to their hearts, as Odysseus so often does, "Endure now, you have endured worse than this in the past." Great stress is laid on Zeus' protection of strangers and suppliants. The gods visit the cities of men to observe their *hybris* and *eunomia*; Zeus Xeinius re-sents evil done to a stranger;¹⁶ strangers and beggars are under Zeus' care;¹⁷ even beggars have their own gods and Erinyes.¹⁸ A suppliant is entitled to respect even from a god;¹⁹ a stranger or a suppliant counts as a brother.²⁰ Polyphemus, we are told expressly, is punished for his disregard of an appeal made in the name of Zeus the protector of suppliants;²¹ the suitors fail to respect strangers, suppliants or heralds, and so they perish.²² Even fame is twice said to depend on men's behaviour,²³ though we are so often assured by modern writers that it depended only on their valour.

If this prevailing tone is really the late introduction of a "moralising" poet, he has done his work thoroughly; only in a few places, such as the mention of the poisoned arrows for which the young Odysseus asked Ilus the son of Mermerus or that of the skill of Autolycus in theft and with the oath,²⁴ do memories of an unregenerate past survive.

This unquestionable difference between the moral climate of the two Homeric poems has seemed to some to prove that the *Iliad* is the earlier, for they assume it to be due to an ethical development that must have taken place between the writing of the *Iliad* and that of the *Odyssey*.²⁵ But we cannot really be certain that the difference may not as well be due to a difference in outlook between two contemporary poets or schools of poetry, or even to a difference between the artistic purposes aimed at in the two epics.²⁶ We may here recall one difference between the poems which Reinhardt penetratingly observed

and characterised.²⁷ All characters and actions of the *Iliad* can be regarded from more than one point of view; not even Henry James is more sensible of the complexity of moral situations than the author of this poem. Achilles and Hector, Helen and Agamemnon are not easily to be classified as good or bad; the issues between Greeks and Trojans, between Achilles and Agamemnon are not (despite the considerations regarding justice mentioned in my first lecture) easily to be seen as conflicts between black and white. In the *Odyssey*, moral issues are infinitely simpler; not only during the adventures narrated by Odysseus, with their marked element of folktale, but even in Ithaca, where daily life is depicted with such great naturalism, good and bad and right and wrong are separated almost as clearly as in a Western film. True, one or two characters have an intermediate status; there are the suitor Amphinomus, to whom Odysseus gives good advice that is not taken, and Phe-mius and Medon, who keep company with the suitors against their will; but these exceptions hardly do more than heighten the contrast between black and white. It seems most unsafe to conclude that the comparative moral simplicity of the *Odyssey* is due simply to ethical progress made by the Greek world in the interval between the composition of the two poems. The truth is that the *Odyssey* is not an epic poem of the same kind as the *Iliad*. It is a poem linked with the true heroic epic through the person of its hero and other characters, yet containing a strong element of folklore and distinguished by a marked moralising strain, conducive to the triumph of the hero, and a happy ending, from the tragic character of the other epic. The difference in theology and morality between the two poems reflects a difference in style and purpose, and is of no value in fixing their temporal relation to each other.

The main theological difference between the epics lies in the *Odyssey's* rejection of the belief that a god may suggest wicked or foolish, as well as good or wise, actions to the minds of men. But since in the *Iliad* the human agent must always be held fully responsible for his action, even though a god has caused

him to perform it, the Odyssean modification of the doctrine exemplified in the *Iliad* is of strictly limited significance.²⁸ It is just the modification of the *Iliad*'s theology that we might expect to find in a poem whose aims and methods differ from those of the *Iliad* in the way in which those of the *Odyssey* differ. If in both epics the terms generally translated "good" refer primarily to skill or excellence, that does not mean that justice or righteousness has not considerable importance. Even in a Christian community, in which the primacy of the so-called co-operative virtues is officially acknowledged, those who are clever, strong or powerful tend to receive more commendation, except from the devout, than those whose excellence is purely moral.

As in the case of the *Odyssey*, so also in that of the Hesiodic epics, we must take care while studying the author's theology to keep in mind his special viewpoint and the purpose of his work. Hesiod was not himself a *basileus*, a member of the local aristocracy which he denotes by this Homeric term. He was a peasant farmer, dependent for justice on those whom Zeus had entrusted with the function of guarding the *themistes*; and when he found that justice was denied him, he naturally reproached the *basileis* with their failure to carry out their duties. He spoke with authority which he claimed was conferred upon him by the Muses; pointing out that they are Zeus' daughters, he argues that poets, no less than *basileis*, have special authority derived from Zeus.²⁹ Defeated in a lawsuit by Perses, who according to Hesiod has bribed the *basileis* to give an unjust judgment, he admonishes his brother with having violated the ordinances of Zeus himself. Zeus' justice, Hesiod says, demands that a man shall earn his living by honest work and not by trickery; and he goes on to justify his claim by describing from their very origins the relations between gods and men.³⁰

In Jewish and in Christian mythology, men, or at least the elect people, are the children of the great god; in Greek religion Zeus may be called "father of gods and men," but that is because he is their ruler and according to some creation myths he is re-

sponsible for men's existence. He is their father in that he wields the power associated with the headship of a family; they are not his children in the sense that he regards them with a father's love.³¹ In his myth of the successive ages, Hesiod represents Kronos, Zeus' father, as kindly towards the men of that golden race which existed while he ruled the universe; even the men of the inferior races which succeeded are regarded with partiality by the nephew of Kronos and cousin of Zeus, Prometheus. During the golden age men did not have to work, but were sustained by the earth without effort of their own, living exempt from pain and sickness. In the Prometheus myth, men at first lived without pain and hardship; then Prometheus, the special patron of men, angered Zeus by deceiving him and so enabling men to keep for themselves the best share of any beast which they sacrificed to the gods. To punish Prometheus, Zeus deprived men of fire; but Prometheus stole it back, hiding it in a hollow fennel-stalk. That led Zeus to create the first woman, through whose folly all kinds of plagues were let loose upon the earth; since then, Zeus has concealed from men the means of getting an easy living, so that they have had to work.³²

Unlike Prometheus, Zeus has no special partiality for men. But Hesiod and other early Greek writers do not reproach Zeus for this; deeply pessimistic as, by Jewish or Christian standards, their view of the position of mankind must appear, their literature is not filled with railings against "whatever brute and blackguard made the world."³³ Unlike the author of those words, they had not been told in childhood that they had immortal souls and would eventually live for ever, and they would not have thought it reasonable to expect Zeus to have their interests at heart in preference to his own. Still, neither their awareness of this favor nor their knowledge that Zeus punished crime prevented ordinary men in early Greece from greeting Zeus with the same kind of affectionate familiarity as the other gods. "Rain, rain, dear Zeus," says the ancient Attic prayer.³⁴

The various accounts of the creation of mankind given by the early Greeks harmonise with the comparatively humble view

of the human situation and prospects which they held. In Hesiod's myth of the ages,³⁵ the first two races of men, the golden and the silver, are created by the gods, the former in the time of Kronos, the latter presumably later; the next two, the race of bronze and the heroes, are created by Zeus; nothing is said about the fifth, the race of iron, to which Hesiod and his contemporaries belong. The myth of the races cannot safely be taken as representative of Greek belief; it is a highly individual invention, made to demonstrate a theory, which found few echoes in later tradition. It has often been observed that among the five races the heroes are the odd race out, and the obvious explanation of this is that the heroes were too firmly established in ordinary belief to be omitted, so that Hesiod had to spoil the symmetry of his myth in order to include them.³⁶ The early Greek belief was that some men of the present time were descended from heroes, themselves descended from the gods through their unions with mortal women. The origins of the large nucleus of ordinary men and women were variously accounted for; Homer says nothing on the subject. The Hesiodic *Catalogues*³⁷ told the story of the great flood which wiped out one early race of men. After the flood, the earth is repopulated through Deucalion; according to the author of the *Catalogues* and other early writers, his father was Prometheus. Deucalion was the father of Hellen, the eponymous ancestor of the Hellenes; Hellen in turn was the father of Dorus, Aeolus and Xuthus, who represent the three principal divisions of the Hellenic race. Not all men after the flood were descended from Deucalion and his wife Pyrrha; Deucalion repopulated the earth by collecting stones, which Zeus turned into men, as in another legend Aeacus repopulated the earth with ants.³⁸ Later Prometheus himself was said to have created the first men from clay; this story seems not to occur before the fourth century.³⁹ All these legends cause most men to be created from inferior material, and in those stories in which some men have a divine ancestor, that ancestor is not Zeus but Prometheus. Belief in creation myths of this kind fits exactly with the prevailing atti-

tude in early Greek poetry; they are in keeping with its modest assessment of the importance of mankind in the universe.

Zeus has no special partiality for men, but according to Hesiod he has given them the gift of justice, so that they do not live in a state of permanent war with one another, as beasts do. In a remarkable fragment of a lost play of Aeschylus, Justice herself explains the origin of her connection with Zeus.⁴⁰ When Zeus overthrew his father Kronos, he had Justice on his side, for his father had given him provocation; since then, Justice has sat beside his throne. The Aeschylean Justice is going only a little beyond what is related by Hesiod, for Hesiod tells how Ouranos was ousted from the throne of the universe by Kronos, Kronos in turn by Zeus, and also how Justice sits beside the throne of Zeus and tells him of the evil purposes of men. He causes the just to prosper and he punishes the unjust, sending thirty thousand immortal watchers to observe their actions and chastening those of whom his daughter Justice makes complaint. The unjust man's family after him will be punished for his actions, just as the just man's will flourish. Zeus' justice requires not only that men be just in their dealings with one another, but that they remember their subordinate station, and do not try to obtain a share in the privileges of the immortals. In the past, Zeus and the gods have destroyed four races of men, and in the future Zeus will destroy the present race of men also as a punishment for having offended against his laws. Zeus benefits men by forcing them to be just to one another, but at the same time his justice keeps them in their proper station.

The claim that Hesiod *introduced* the ideal of justice, though reiterated by many respected authorities,⁴¹ must be rejected. Hesiod in the *Works and Days* applied to his own circumstances the doctrine of Zeus, justice and the responsibilities of the *basileis* which can be seen most clearly in the *Odyssey*, but which is already present in the *Iliad*; nor could Hesiod have appealed for justice as he does unless her authority had already been recognized. In the *Theogony* he set it in the context of the universal order guaranteed by Zeus, whose origins he now ex-

plained. In that poem Zeus after overcoming the last dangerous threat to his power by conquering Typhoeus marries Themis and becomes the father of Dike together with Eirene, Peace, and with Eunomia;⁴² the notion of *eunomia* connotes both the possession of good laws and the disposition to obey them.⁴³ Mythological genealogy was for Hesiod a means of expressing his beliefs about the universe and the way in which Zeus governed it, and this family was no doubt his own invention. Still, by means of it he expressed an opinion which was also held by the authors of both the *Iliad* and the *Odyssey*.

This examination of the development of ethical concepts has so far thrown no light on the chronological relation to one another of the epics ascribed to Homer and Hesiod,⁴⁴ neither has it provided safe evidence for the development of ethics from one of these epics to another. But when we come to the transition from the age of epic to the age of lyric, from the eighth century to the seventh, shall we not come to very different conclusions?

Most of the best modern authorities discover a marked change in spiritual climate between the epic and the lyric age. Writing both some forty years ago, and from somewhat different points of view, Pfeiffer and Snell⁴⁵ both find the characteristic note of the age of lyric in the heightened sense of *amechanie*, of the helplessness of mortals in the face of the difficulties of life. At the outset of the archaic age Dodds is struck by the presence not of a different belief but of "a different emotional reaction to the old belief";⁴⁶ he finds "a deepened awareness of human insecurity and human helplessness (*amechania*), which has its religious correlate in the feeling of divine hostility."⁴⁷ Dodds recognises that even in the Homeric poems the view taken of man's position is not one of unmixed optimism. "Yet, for all that," he writes, "Homer's princes bstride their world boldly; they fear the gods only as they fear their human overlords; nor are they oppressed by the future even when, like Achilles, they know that it holds an approaching doom."⁴⁸

Dodds allows that the actual religious belief at the beginning, at least, of the archaic age was not substantially different from that found in Homer. We have seen how in the *Odyssey* Zeus denies that the gods put evil ideas into men's minds, and that nowhere in the poem does the poet say they do. It has often been remarked that the theology of Solon, who wrote not long after 600 B.C., is virtually the same as that of the poet of the *Odyssey*, nor is the view of the relations between gods and men presented by most poets in the intervening period very different. Dodds finds that the main difference lies in the emotional attitude.

We must, I think, allow for certain factors in the situation which make that emotional attitude seem more different than it really is. In the Homeric poems, and more especially in the *Iliad*, the world of gods as well as the world of men lies open to the poet's vision. Although the ultimate purposes of Zeus are there, as everywhere in Greek poetry, inscrutable to men, the gods often mingle with the heroes and communicate their purposes directly, as well as through the medium of dreams and prophecies. The actions of the gods, although incalculable, are not therefore so mysterious as they would seem if the heroes lacked the special contact with the gods which they possess. Another factor that makes the emotional atmosphere of the lyric age seem different results from the basic difference between epic and lyric poetry. The very nature of lyric and elegiac poetry renders it natural for the poet to use it to express his personal feelings, and since he is human his feelings will often be determined by his perplexity in the face of the problems with which life confronts him. In a short poem meant for recital before a small audience and dealing with the events and emotions of the poet's life, it is not surprising if feelings of sadness or despair loom large, especially in a culture whose religion offers no easy consolation. We talk of the lyric age, but lyric poetry did not come into existence with Alcman and Archilochus. It must have been composed much earlier, nor can

we safely assume that earlier lyrics, simple as they may have been, were written only for use in worship and never gave expression to personal emotions.⁴⁹

Even in the surviving epics, where the main actors are heroes, less prone to give way to despair than the common run of humanity, desperation at the hard lot of the individual, of the community or of mankind in general is not uncommonly expressed. Pfeiffer in the article I lately quoted⁵⁰ has himself stressed certain affinities in this respect between the epic and the later poetry. In the last book of the *Iliad* Apollo blames Achilles for his excessive grief for the dead Patroclus; others, he says, have lost a loved one, but have ceased from lamentation, for "the gods have given man a *thymos* that can endure."⁵¹ These words are in the mind of Archilochus when in the elegy written after some of his friends have been lost at sea he reminds Pericles that "against evils that cannot be cured the gods have given strong endurance."⁵² We have already seen that the notion of endurance is a prominent motive of the *Odyssey*, where again and again in desperate circumstances Odysseus exhorts his *thymos* to endure. When Archilochus speaks to his *thymos* in the same fashion, he describes it as "thrown into turmoil by troubles that are hard to deal with."⁵³ He adjures himself to face his enemies in battle and to preserve moderation in victory and defeat alike; he does not surrender to despair, nor does he resist the troubles that beset him less bravely than one of Homer's heroes. When he reminds himself what kind of a pattern shapes the concerns of men, he is doing in a different way what Achilles in his words to Priam near the end of the *Iliad* has already done before him.

We are accustomed to being told that Archilochus "revolted against traditional values to a degree far transcending the particular issues of his time"; the explanation for this, some scholars think, lies in his illegitimate birth and in the various difficulties he had to face. The first verses we read that are not epic are said to transport us to a new world: Archilochus begins a line with the words "I am"—it is the poem in which he claims to be the

servant of Ares and the possessor of the Muses' gift,⁵⁴ and we are told in words I apologise for not being able to put into English, "er stellt sein Ich frei heraus": we are also told that he addresses his *thymos* directly, as though that were new, and as though Archilochus were the first Greek to write a lyric poem. When he tells how in order to escape death in battle he threw away his shield,⁵⁵ we are told that he is rebelling against the Homeric code of honour. But those who tell us so seem to be confusing the Homeric code of honour with that of the Spartans typified by the mother who said "with your shield or on it"; do they imagine that the Homeric Odysseus, faced with the choice between abandoning his shield and being killed or captured, would have kept his shield? ⁵⁶ Archilochus says that no one who is dead is given proper respect or fame, that men try to please not the dead but the living, and that the dead are always as badly off as possible.⁵⁷ We are told that he is revolting against the Homeric notion that a brave man must sacrifice all things, even life itself, to fame. The utter misery of the dead is hardly an unhomeric notion; when Odysseus, saluting Achilles in Hades, calls him the most fortunate of all men, Achilles replies that he would rather be a serf on earth than rule over the dead.⁵⁸ In any case, Archilochus is not saying that fame is an empty notion; he is saying, as the second sentence shows, that living men do not accord it when they should, since they are more eager to carry out the wishes of the living, who can reward them, than the wishes of the dead. Archilochus says he does not care for a general who is tall, takes long strides, is proud of his curly hair and shaves carefully; he prefers a short man with bandy legs who is steady on his feet and full of courage.⁵⁹ But the idea that a man's appearance is no guide to his performance in action is as old as the account of the Greek embassy to Troy before the start of the war that Antenor gives to Helen in the third book of the *Iliad*.⁶⁰ Odysseus, he says, was shorter than Menelaus and when he first rose to speak gave the impression of inexperience by his downcast gaze and his way of holding the sceptre fast without moving it. He seemed ill-tempered

and unintelligent, but once he had begun to speak, the effect was very different. One of the few heroes whose good looks are stressed is Paris, who though not a coward is not one of the most effective fighters. The great Tydeus, according to his son Diomedes, was small of stature, but a fighter;⁶¹ it is against the background of these passages that we must read Pindar's words when he describes his patron Melissus as being "contemptible in appearance, but formidable when he joined battle with the spear," and adds that Heracles was "small in body, but unbending in spirit."⁶² When Archilochus stresses the supremacy of Zeus,⁶³ the helplessness of mortals to achieve anything without divine help,⁶⁴ the alternation of good and bad fortune and the unending mutability of human fortunes,⁶⁵ he is echoing the belief found in Homer, and the words in which he adjures himself to remain courageous in the face of difficulties resemble those used in similar situations by Odysseus. Faced with injustice, the fox in his fable appeals to Zeus;⁶⁶ that fox stands for Archilochus himself. His violence against his enemies is no evidence for his lack of self-control by the standards of the seventh century, whatever Pindar may have felt about it in the fifth.⁶⁷ Hating one's enemies was, according to the ethics of the time, a merit, and even the virtuous Solon two generations later prayed that he might taste sweet in the mouths of his friends and bitter in those of his adversaries.⁶⁸ Even had Archilochus been born in wedlock, I doubt whether his treatment of his enemies would have been more courteous. Page has lately demonstrated that the style and language of Archilochus' elegiac verses is closely modelled upon Homer;⁶⁹ much the same is true of his opinions regarding the gods and their government of the universe, and also of his attitude regarding the human condition. When he calls himself the servant of Enyalios and one that possesses the gift of the Muses,⁷⁰ he is seeing himself in Homeric terms; when he adjures himself to stand fast against his enemies, he does so in words that deliberately recall the words of Odysseus. Let no one suggest that I am denying the originality and individuality of the great poet Archilochus; I wish simply to point out that

they are asserted not only, for the most part, in Homer's language but also within the framework of Homer's beliefs and attitudes. They will be best appreciated not by means of anxious attempts to demonstrate that Archilochus made a distinctive contribution to the development of theology, ethics or psychology but by the study, so far as the remains permit it, of his poetic aims and methods.

Another author often quoted as exemplifying the new *amechanie*, the desperation, supposed to be characteristic of the lyric age is Sappho. Sappho is above all else a poet of love, and so often describes the despair of unsatisfied longing for the beloved being. When she calls Love "a bitter-sweet irresistible creature,"⁷¹ the use of *amachanon* is pounced on by the chroniclers of early Greek ethical development as proof that she suffered from the same psychic complaint as other poets of her time. Like other early poets, Sappho knows that power and immortality belong only to the gods, and that men can enjoy moments of happiness only when the gods grant them. Like other early poets, she entreats the gods to grant her wishes, knowing that they may do so, but that she cannot count on their compliance. Naturally the gods she most often prays to are Eros and Aphrodite: sometimes they grant her prayer; if they refuse, like Archilochus she must endure.⁷² Like the other poets she laments the coming of old age,⁷³ but that is hardly a peculiarity of the age she lived in. She is a woman and her spiritual world is narrow; but so far as it extends, it coincides with a part of the spiritual world described by Homer. Sappho in one great poem shows herself aware that Homer presents one female character, Helen, whose devotion to love is equal to her own.⁷⁴

Alcaeus yields just as little evidence to the seeker after ethical development. Like all the early poets, he stresses the power of Zeus, who can dispose all things as he will and without whom not even a hair can be moved.⁷⁵ He believes that Zeus punishes the wicked, as the recently published Cologne fragment clearly shows.⁷⁶ It is better for a community, he says, to stone a member who has provoked divine punishment than to risk sharing his

fate, and following a post-Homeric epic he illustrates it from the case of the Greeks who took Troy, who might have escaped the disastrous storm that overtook them while returning had they punished Ajax the Locrian for his rape of Cassandra in the temple of Athene. The civil war on Lesbos, he says in another poem, has been caused by one of the Olympians, who has led the *demos* to Ate and given longed-for glory to Pittacus; we must remark that Alcaeus here adopts an Iliadic rather than an Odyssean or Hesiodic view of divine motivation. This return to an earlier belief should be irritating to those who insist on linear development, but they can of course blame it on this poet's well-known reactionary tendencies. Where Archilochus would have exhorted his companions to practise endurance, we are told, Alcaeus merely urges his to drink deeply and forget their cares. We happen to have evidence—and if we had not, we could easily have surmised it—that Archilochus did not despise the efficacy of wine as a promoter of endurance; neither did Alcaeus, but the soothing power of wine does not exhaust the social and symbolic significance of the symposium in early aristocratic societies, as is now generally recognised.⁷⁷ When the poet warns his companions of a coming struggle, urges them to remember earlier trials and exhorts each of them to win glory and not disgrace his ancestors, he like Archilochus is deliberately viewing the contemporary situation in a Homeric light. He and his friends, like their ancestors, are good,⁷⁸ Pittacus and other enemies, like their ancestors, are bad;⁷⁹ that is to say, his friends are defending *Dike* as the guarantor of a particular social order. The *Dike* that has this function is not therefore devoid of moral significance; Alcaeus like other noblemen believes that *noblesse oblige*, and for him “goodness” connotes moral as well as social attributes.

The aspect of human resourcelessness that vexes Mimnermus, at least in the surviving fragments, is the impermanence of youth and love, which poets must have deplored even before Homer. Like Semonides of Amorgos,⁸⁰ he laments their passing in language full of Homeric echoes;⁸¹ the comparison of the

generations of men to leaves comes from the speech of Glaucus to Diomedes in the sixth book of the *Iliad*,⁸² the fates of death which stand always beside us from the speech of Sarpedon to Glaucus in the twelfth.⁸³ Zeus, Mimnermus says, gives all men much evil,⁸⁴ just as Achilles in the last book of the *Iliad* says that Zeus gives to men two parts evil to one part good. Like Archilochus before him and Theognis after him, he shows contempt for public opinion, a characteristically aristocratic sentiment⁸⁵ customarily glossed over by those who thumb through the poetry of this period for evidence of the increased importance of the *polis*. His hedonism, like that of Alcaeus, is perfectly compatible with the ability to strike a martial note in most impressive fashion.⁸⁶

Like Mimnermus, Semonides of Amorgos⁸⁷ echoes the language in which Homer speaks of the ephemerality of man in order to urge his friends to enjoy life while it lasts. What prevents them from doing so, he says, is hope, which causes them to plan many projects which the certainty of old age and death at the finish renders vain. The same doctrine is stated more explicitly and at greater length in the first and longest of the iambic fragments.⁸⁸ Zeus determines all things and men have no intelligence, yet each man is confident that he is on the point of attaining riches or success, and so persists in vain endeavour until old age or death comes upon him.

Hope plays just the same part in the account of human life given by Solon in the great poem that begins in Hesiodic fashion with an invocation of the Muses which is designed to establish the poet's claim to speak with authority as the servant of the daughters of Zeus.⁸⁹ Men delude themselves about the nature of their gifts and capacities and devote themselves to favourite plans in the expectation that effort will command success, forgetting that mortals receive good or bad according to their god-given portion and that what the gods send cannot be avoided.⁹⁰ The purpose of the gods is inscrutable,⁹¹ Solon says elsewhere, and no man is altogether happy or exempt from toil.⁹²

Good or bad fortune from Zeus, Solon believes, depends on innocence or guilt; he strongly insists that the guilty man is always punished, either in his person or through his descendants after him. We have seen that that belief was not new in Solon's time. Unlike Alcaeus, Solon takes an Odyssean and not an Iliadic view of divine motivation;⁹³ he denies that the gods put evil thoughts into men's minds, and puts the responsibility for action fairly and squarely on the human agent. He himself, like all men, wishes to help his friends and harm his enemies, but he has no wish for prosperity gained by injustice, for it is bound to bring misfortune. *Arete* is permanent, wealth is not, and no man needs more than he can use. For Solon, *Arete* obviously has a moral element. What is new and important is the way in which this ancient doctrine is applied to the current political situation. Men must not blame the gods for their misfortunes; Zeus and Athene are protecting Athens, but danger comes from the greed of the citizens, especially those who possess most, to gain yet more.⁹⁴

There is no point in trying to distinguish a Hesiodic Dike, who acts only through human judgments and through external visitations of the gods, like plagues and famines, and a Solonian Dike, immanent in the working of the universe. We have seen that even in the *Iliad* Zeus' justice may act through the judgments of kings who are his agents, but may be made manifest in the actual working of events. To early Greek thinkers for whom the gods were manifest in the natural working of the universe, such a distinction would not have been important. Having in mind Hesiod's account of how Power and Violence, as well as Dike, stand by the throne of Zeus, Solon claims that in his legislation he has harmonised justice with these divinities.⁹⁵ Remembering, again, how in Hesiod Dike is the sister of Eunomia, Solon declares that his own *thymos* tells him to teach the Athenians how much good results from Eunomia and how much ill from Dysnomia; the promptings of his *thymos* have the authority given to him by the Muses.⁹⁶ We now recognise that in the view of the ancients a poet's originality was not di-

minished by his use of old material, but rather displayed in his ingenious adaptation of that material to his own purposes; what is true of poetic technique is also true of thought. It is no disparagement of the achievement of the great statesman and political thinker to point out that the doctrines he puts forward come to him from Hesiod and from Homer.

Another poet whose poetry relates closely to the life of the *polis* is Tyrtaeus, but he is not connected with it in the way some scholars have supposed. According to him, it has been maintained, "there is only one standard of true *arete*—the state. Whatever helps the state is good, whatever injures it is bad."⁹⁷ In fact no such doctrine is stated either in the famous elegy about *arete*⁹⁸ or elsewhere in the fragments of Tyrtaeus. The view that the supreme kind of *arete* is martial valour, which is upheld at the beginning of fr. 9, would hardly have surprised the poet of the *Iliad*, nor would the poet who wrote of Hector have been surprised at hearing that martial valour was a good in which the *polis* and the whole *demos* had a share. Valour is praised in this poem not only because the community to which the writer belongs has to be made to realise that it must fight or starve, but because valour leads to honour. The man who dies in battle after fighting bravely is mourned for by young and old alike; his tomb is pointed out and his descendants enjoy distinction; his name is not allowed to perish.⁹⁹ If a man is driven from his city and his rich fields, he is reduced to beggary,¹⁰⁰ but the worst thing about this beggary is the disgrace. Tyrtaeus wrote, it is true, to exhort the Spartans to fight bravely for their community, but that community was ruled by aristocratic principles, and his poetry appeals above all to the sense of honour of its individual members. Not only his language but his ideas are strongly reminiscent of the *Iliad*; his tone closely resembles that of the Ionian elegist, Callinus of Ephesus. When Jaeger claims that Tyrtaeus was trying to substitute a city-state morality for an aristocratic morality in Sparta,¹⁰¹ he has failed to notice that in Sparta the two kinds of morality were not distinct.

In Sparta the community was forced by military necessity to remain united under aristocratic leadership, but in other places the old aristocracy was challenged by tyranny, often promoting class war for its own purposes. How much of the Theognidean corpus is by Theognis will never be determined, but for the present purpose the question is not important, since the moral attitudes shown in the poems of the collection are more or less consistent. Its moral tone is very like that of other Greek poetry of the time. The gods are prayed to, piety is enjoined, parents and strangers are to be respected,¹⁰² friends should be helped and enemies damaged,¹⁰³ falsehood and insincerity are strongly disapproved of.¹⁰⁴ Strong stress is laid on the mutability of fortune;¹⁰⁵ men are *amechanoi*,¹⁰⁶ and all power rests with the gods, who send *ate* or profit to men at their pleasure.¹⁰⁷ They punish crime, sometimes early but at others late;¹⁰⁸ they can make evil seem good to those they have decided to destroy.¹⁰⁹ One couplet says that mortals must not contend with immortals nor plead a cause against them,¹¹⁰ but in two remarkable passages the injunction is disregarded. In the first of these,¹¹¹ Zeus is reproached with allowing the wicked to flourish while good men suffer poverty, the mother of *amechanie*; in the second,¹¹² the poet complains of the god's injustice in visiting the sins of the guilty fathers upon the heads of their innocent children. It is significant that this was probably written just when the belief that men were punished in the next life for the sins of this was beginning to spread.

As for Alcaeus, so also for Theognis; his own friends and associates are good, his enemies bad. Perhaps the most striking instance of the use of *agathos* in a non-ethical sense occurs in a passage in which Theognis laments that men who till lately lived outside the city and wore goatskins are now good and men who until lately were good are now bad.¹¹³ Here the poet boldly uses the word good to mean "belonging to the prevailing group," which has now come to consist of those who until lately were termed bad. This is not his usual usage, for he generally reserves the title good for his own party; but until the recent

revolution that party had always retained power, so that though good usually means "belonging to the party of the nobles," it can also be used abnormally to mean "belonging to the party in power."¹¹⁴

However, a close examination of the poems shows that the words meaning "good" usually connote certain moral qualities apart from or in addition to power, social status and martial prowess. In particular, the *agathos* must possess loyalty,¹¹⁵ a virtue to whose importance in aristocratic societies I drew attention in connection with the *Iliad*, but whose necessity to such societies when they are threatened needs no explanation. The *kakos* or *deilos* does not know the principles, the *gnomai*, of good and evil;¹¹⁶ he cannot be made *esthlos* by taking good advice,¹¹⁷ and so remains shifty and untrustworthy.¹¹⁸ He is particularly prone to *hybris*.¹¹⁹ Unlike the *esthlos* he lacks self-control and will be unable to endure pain or hardship.¹²⁰ Endurance, almost as much as loyalty, is a leading theme of these poems, as it is of the *Odyssey* and, it appears, of the poems of Archilochus.¹²¹ When the poet wishes for no other kind of *arete* but *eudaimonia*,¹²² he is offering a variant of the commonplace that success and not skill is what counts, so that *arete* here is probably not ethical. But far more often we find him preferring, as Solon does, poverty with *arete* to wealth with *kakia*,¹²³ although for him poverty is one of the worse of evils.¹²⁴ The famous couplet which asserts that all *arete* is contained in justice comes immediately after one which expresses a preference for honest poverty over ill-gotten wealth.¹²⁵ Adkins¹²⁶ finds the statement about justice "sudden" and "amazing"; but if it is remembered that the writer, like Simonides,¹²⁷ would probably have denied full *arete* to the man who was *apalamnos*, unable to defend his interests, and also that he believed that the unjust were punished by the gods, I do not find it specially surprising. It is by no means uncommon for people to identify moral goodness with membership of a particular social group, though in our own time the most conspicuous instances are furnished not by aristocratic societies but by believers in the cult of the com-

mon man or the working class. It is hardly fair to assume that because Theognis often makes this identification his conception of goodness must have lacked a moral element, and in fact we have seen that it is not so. Further, he did not consistently deny the moral qualities implied by goodness to his enemies; in one place he declares that one has a duty to praise even an enemy if he is good,¹²⁸ a sentiment that we find uttered, and with great emphasis, by another firm believer in aristocracy, Pindar.¹²⁹

Simonides in his few extant fragments presents the traditional Greek world picture with great clarity. Men are at best feeble creatures;¹³⁰ no man is exempt from toil;¹³¹ the gods can easily deceive them;¹³² the gods alone can know the future;¹³³ all men die at last.¹³⁴ *Arete* comes only with toil, and it can be given only by a god;¹³⁵ the two statements are not inconsistent, for in Greek religion both effort and divine favour are needed for success.¹³⁶ Goodness as a general characteristic can be predicated only of a god, never of a man, who may be overcome by a turn of events which leaves him helpless. When a man fares well, he is good; when he fares ill, he is bad; and as we know from Homer and many later authors, no man's fortune is entirely good. In the celebrated poem written for the Scopadae,¹³⁷ does the word "good" denote a co-operative or a competitive excellence? Direct indications in the text are lacking, but it seems to me rash to insist that the word implies only a competitive kind of goodness. At this period, as the evidence from Theognis indicates, the word is used vaguely to denote either kind of excellence or, more often, both together. When Simonides says that the good man will do, if he can help it, nothing ugly,¹³⁸ his conception of goodness is at least partly a co-operative goodness. Simonides says he will be content with a man who is not *hakos*, nor excessively incompetent (*apalamnos*), and who knows justice that benefits the city, a healthy man.¹³⁹ The mention of justice seems to me to indicate that the goodness he has in mind is more than a mere skill. The case for this view derives some support from a fragment published in 1959 and conjecturally assigned to Simonides.¹⁴⁰ Few can possess *arete*, says the poet,¹⁴¹

for it is not easy to be good; one is constrained against one's will by the irresistible desire for gain, or by the mighty urge of Aphrodite, or by quarrels that spring up rapidly. Greed, passion or hatred surely do not prevent men from being skilful, but rather from being good in the moral sense.

Few authors seem at first sight to provide more material to those who maintain the inadequacy of the early concept of moral goodness than Pindar. "The gods watch the doings of men and take their own part in them," writes the most sympathetic of his modern interpreters, "but they are not for Pindar guardians of morality except in certain spheres which belong to them and where any infringement of their rights is a personal affront."¹⁴² Our examination of the *Iliad* has shown that it is from this very notion that a god is affronted by any infringement of his rights within a particular sphere that the concept of Zeus as the champion of justice first developed. The same truth may be illustrated from the works of Pindar. When Coronis becomes the victim of Ate and incurs the vengeance of Apollo,¹⁴³ the god is punishing an offence against him within his own particular sphere; the same could be said of Zeus' punishment of Tantalus for giving nectar and ambrosia, the food of the gods, to his human friends.¹⁴⁴ However, Zeus punishes Ixion partly for his attempt to seduce Hera, but partly for having been the first to shed the blood of a relation; in his case, he is punishing ingratitude, and so acting as the champion of justice.¹⁴⁵ Further, we must note how often and how emphatically the gods, and Zeus and Apollo in particular, are identified with order, peace and harmony, in contrast with the forces of brute strength and violence. In the first Pythian Ode violence is typified by the monster Typhos, who lies beneath Mount Etna breathing fire, the deadly enemy of Zeus who has subdued him; later in the poem it is implied that Hieron owes his triumph to Zeus and that his defeated enemies, the Carthaginians and Etruscans, resemble Zeus' enemies.¹⁴⁶ So too in the eighth Pythian ode Hesychia, Quiet, daughter of Justice, is contrasted with the brutal force of Porphyryon and the other giants conquered

by Zeus and the gods. Dike herself, as in Hesiod, is the daughter of Zeus by his early marriage with Themis, and the sister of Eunomia and of Eirene.¹⁴⁷ Of course the word *dika* can be used by Pindar in a relative sense, as when he says "each approves his own *dika*"¹⁴⁸ or that "a strong man puts an end to the former *dika*";¹⁴⁹ and of course Dike together with her sisters may be said to stand for the maintenance of the particular type of social order which Pindar himself approves. That is the order which entrusts power to ancient monarchies and to aristocracies; the rule of tyrants and of "the noisy crowd"¹⁵⁰ seems to be identified with the power of violence and disorder. But if Pindar's view of Justice is coloured by his own political sympathies, that does not mean that it is cynical, or that it lacks a moral element. Justice is contrasted by him, as by Simonides, with *kerdos*, the pursuit of gain;¹⁵¹ the just man hates *hybris*;¹⁵² time in the last resort protects the righteous.¹⁵³ Justice is mentioned in connection with the rights of strangers, as she has been in poetry since Homer.¹⁵⁴ As in Theognis, we find the importance of loyalty strongly stressed;¹⁵⁵ and though *areta* usually refers to some kind of skill or excellence, it is used also of the generosity of Croesus to the god of Delphi, of the self-sacrifice of Antilochus, of the hospitality of the Aeginetans and of the exertion for the common weal that Pindar holds to be the distinguishing feature of aristocracy.¹⁵⁶ Justice in Pindar does not simply mean justice in one's dealings with other men. When Bellerophon tries to fly up to heaven on Pegasus, his action is contrary to justice. It is an infringement of the order maintained by Zeus within the universe, a failure to heed the warning so constantly repeated that mortals must remember that they are mortal.¹⁵⁷ As the gods maintain justice in the universe, so do kings like the mythical Rhadamanthys¹⁵⁸ or Eumolpus¹⁵⁹ or the living Hieron, Theron or Arcesilas maintain justice in the communities they govern; in other communities, like Thessaly or Pindar's own city, Thebes, power is vested in the nobles, whom Hesiod would have called *basileis*. That corresponds closely with the notion of justice that we found in Homer.

A recent papyrus discovery has increased our knowledge of the poem quoted by Callicles in Plato's *Gorgias* which opened with the words "Law is king over all, mortals and immortals; he governs all things, making just what is most violent with arm supreme."¹⁶⁰ From the initial mention of the triumph of Heracles over the three-bodied monster Geryones, Pindar goes on to narrate his expedition against Diomedes, the savage Thracian king who fed his mares on human flesh. Diomedes resisted him, Pindar says, "not in pride but in valour; for it is better to die in defence of possessions that are being seized from one than to be a coward." In his battles against Geryones and Diomedes, Heracles was according to the normal code of justice the aggressor; yet his actions were made just, says Pindar, by the power of Law. What is meant by Law in this connection? Geryones and Diomedes have placed themselves by their enormities beyond the pale, and every man's hand is against them; the obvious parallel is furnished by the Cyclopes in the *Odyssey* who have no Dike and no *themistes*, but live by violence, not caring for the disapproval of the gods. Their law is the law Zeus established, according to Hesiod, for fish, beasts and birds, that they should prey upon each other;¹⁶¹ the law of Justice, which Zeus has given to men, does not apply to them.

For Pindar the gods, and Zeus above all, are the only source of power;¹⁶² mortals can have no success without their favour. This does not mean that mortals who enjoy that favour can leave all to heaven and relax their efforts; only if they try their hardest will the divine favour be vouchsafed. Men and gods come ultimately from the same origin,¹⁶³ but the difference that separates them is infinite; gods are powerful and immortal, men feeble and ephemeral. Excellence in all things, in battle, in athletics and in the writing of poetry, comes only to those fitted for it by their nature, the special aptitude that descends to those sprung from divine ancestors; those who lack this may try hard to learn it, but will never attain success. Upon the privileged few, in whose veins a particle of their own blood flows, the gods may for a brief moment cause the divine radiance to shine.

The archaic age was in many respects a period of rapid change; but the preceding summary has shown that certain elements in religious and moral thinking remained constant to a degree which has not always been appreciated by scholars on the watch for new developments. The seventh century was the period in which the Delphic Oracle acquired its predominant position, and the outlook that is expressed in its utterances then and later is in close accord with that common to the early poets. Zeus and the gods are all-powerful, and human life is not worth much. Solon in Herodotus tells Croesus the story of Cleobis and Biton, whose mother prayed Apollo to reward them for their piety towards her with the highest gift that lay in his power.¹⁶⁴ Their reward was the same which the god gave to Trophonius and Agamedes, the builders of his first temple¹⁶⁵—a painless and immediate death. That the best fortune for mortals is not to have been born, and the next best is to die as soon as possible is a common thought in early Greece; we find it in Theognis, in Pindar, and again in Sophocles.¹⁶⁶ The base of the statues of Cleobis and Biton has been found at Delphi, and the inscription on the base dates from the end of the seventh century, so that by that date their story must have been well known.¹⁶⁷ The insignificance of human life was indicated by the most famous of the three sayings inscribed on the temple rebuilt by the Alcmaeonids; “know thyself” means “remember that you are a human being.” Delphi affirmed the justice of the gods. The best illustration is the story of Glaucus, which in Herodotus is told by the Spartan king Leotychidas in 490; since the person concerned is named, the story may well be true, and in any case it is indicative of the Delphic attitude.¹⁶⁸ When the sons of a man who had deposited money with the Spartan Glaucus asked for it back, Glaucus asked the god whether he might safely deny having received it; the Pythia replied with a warning of the consequences of breaking an oath, and by the time of the narrator the family of Glaucus had become extinct. The learned historians of the Delphic oracle find the oracle to Glaucus somewhat in contrast with the “unhelpful pessimism”

expressed in the stories of Cleobis and Biton and of Trophonius and Agamedes.¹⁶⁹ But there is no reason why a belief in divine justice should not accompany a pessimistic view of human life, and we have seen that the combination of the two was in fact characteristic of the thinking of the archaic age.

Another of the sayings upon the temple—"nothing in excess"—illustrates the kind of mental attitude which this view of life tended to inculcate. Since human life is fragile and the gods all-powerful, it is all important to refrain from doing anything to provoke them. Prosperity itself is dangerous, for it may tempt one to actions that may offend the gods; excessive wealth and power are a danger to their possessors. Archilochus' carpenter does not envy the wealth of Gyges;¹⁷⁰ Solon covets no more wealth than suffices for his comfort;¹⁷¹ and archaic literature is full of stories that exalt the moderation of wise men like Solon above the wealth of kings like Croesus. In Theognis the term *sophron*, rare in Homer and absent from early lyric, acquires importance;¹⁷² its basic meaning is not "prudence" or "moderation" but "safe thinking," the kind of thinking that protects one from *hybris*. When one bears in mind the ineradicable tendency of the Greeks, once they have tasted wealth or success, to become intoxicated by it, the practical value of this moral concept becomes obvious.

Dodds argues that the archaic age was notable for its growing insistence on the importance of ritual purification, which was met by a large class of professional *kathartai*. "There is no trace in Homer," says Dodds, "of the belief that pollution was either infectious or hereditary";¹⁷³ and though the Homeric poems contain isolated references to cathartic practices, these are far less prominent there than they become during the Archaic Age. With the increased importance of pollution, Dodds associates that of the notion of divine envy, the primitive belief that human prosperity in itself can provoke the gods into destroying or harming its possessors. Such a belief, he says, is absent from the *Iliad* and comparatively rare in the *Odyssey*, but in the Late Archaic and Early Classical Ages he finds that it has become "an

oppressive menace, a source—or expression—of religious anxiety.”¹⁷⁴ A whole world seems to separate the archaic world, and even the world of the early fifth century, from the world of Homer. Since Rohde in his great book *Psyche* posed the problem, scholars have made one guess after another at the underlying causes of that difference. Till something has been said about this classic problem of the apparently radical cultural change in this respect which separates the archaic age from that which preceded it, any discussion of the religious and ethical history of the period must remain incomplete.